



GDCAU

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Systems Thinking for Sustainability: A Beginner's Toolkit

Why Systems Thinking?

Sustainability requires seeing the “big picture.” **Systems thinking** is a set of tools and research methods for understanding **interconnections** and **complexity**. Instead of breaking problems into isolated parts, systems thinking looks at how parts relate, feedback, and co-evolve. It helps us identify root causes and high-impact interventions. This guide introduces you to key concepts of systems thinking – systems, feedback loops, adaptive cycles, nested systems, and leverage points – in clear language, with examples relevant to Central Asia. By the end, you should see how these ideas can help address real challenges like water management, agriculture, campus sustainability, and local governance in a more **holistic and effective** way.

Systems thinking is especially important today because the major challenges we face — like climate change, biodiversity loss, social inequality, and resource depletion — are not separate problems. They are connected outcomes of the same underlying patterns: extractive economies, short-term decision-making, and disconnection from ecological limits. Take, for example, intensive cotton farming in Central Asia. Expanding irrigation canals to boost yields led to massive water withdrawals from rivers feeding the Aral Sea, contributing to ecological collapse and regional climate shifts. As soils degraded and water became scarce, biodiversity declined. At the same time, rural communities lost their livelihoods and faced growing inequality. This one case shows how environmental degradation, social hardship, and economic fragility can emerge from the same system dynamics. Systems thinking helps us see these links — and design regenerative solutions that restore ecosystems, support community well-being, and shift underlying values and goals.

So, what is a System?

At its core, a system is a group of parts that interact to create patterns of behavior over time. These parts can be physical (like rivers, buildings, or plants), social (like communities, policies, or institutions), or conceptual (like values or goals). What makes it a system is not just the elements themselves, but how they are connected.

A university, for example, is more than its classrooms or staff—it includes energy flows, student cultures, digital platforms, food systems, and funding structures, all influencing one another. Likewise, a mountain pasture is a system made up of climate, grasses, soil, animals, herders, traditions, and markets—none of which act alone.

Systems thinking teaches us to pay attention to relationships. It encourages questions like: *What influences what? What happens when something changes? What feedbacks keep this system stable or push it toward change?*

Earlier systems theory often assumed that systems had fixed purposes—like “educate students” or “maximize crop yield.” But more recent thinking, including from scholars like Tim Ingold and William Connolly, reminds us that many systems don’t have one clear goal. Their purpose may be multiple, shifting, or even contested. For instance, a city’s food system might aim to feed people, support local farmers, reduce emissions, and promote cultural traditions—all at once, and not always in harmony.

That’s why systems thinking isn’t about finding the one “correct” map. It’s about observing how parts relate, how patterns emerge, and how different perspectives shape what we see.

In short:

- A **system** is an interconnected set of elements that produces patterns over time.
- Systems can be ecological, social, cultural—or all of these at once.
- Their behavior often depends more on relationships and feedback than on any one part.
- Some systems have clear goals; others evolve and shift depending on context. Understanding systems helps us move beyond surface problems to deeper causes—and opens up more effective, regenerative responses.

Key Terms of Systems Science

Feedback Loops

Feedback loops are the circulating chains of cause-and-effect that drive a system’s behavior. In a feedback loop, a change in one element *feeds back* to influence that same element later, forming a loop of influences. Feedback loops can be **reinforcing** (positive) or **balancing** (negative):

- **Reinforcing (Positive) Feedback Loops:** These loops amplify change in one direction – they are self-reinforcing. “**The more it works, the more it gains power to work some more**” (Meadows). For example, in human populations, more babies

being born leads to a larger population, which in turn can lead to even more births – a virtuous (or vicious) cycle of growth. In Central Asia, consider rural-urban migration: as more people leave a village, local services decline, which causes even more people (especially youth) to leave. This reinforcing loop can accelerate until the village is largely depopulated. Reinforcing loops often underlie **exponential growth or collapse**. They can be beneficial (e.g., a thriving innovation hub attracts talent, which creates more innovation) or harmful (e.g., poverty leading to lack of education and opportunities, which leads to more poverty). *Importantly, positive here doesn't mean "good" – it refers to amplifying change, not whether the change is desirable.*

- **Balancing (Negative) Feedback Loops:** These loops counteract change and push the system back toward stability or a goal. They are **self-correcting** loops. In traditional highland herding systems, for example, herders historically moved their animals to a different summer pastures higher in the hills (*jailoo* in Kyrgyzstan and *sheiling* in Scotland). This movement allowed the heavily grazed lowlands to rest and recover, balancing livestock pressure with the land's ability to regenerate. In nature, predator-prey dynamics form balancing loops too: if prey (say rabbits) become too abundant, predator populations (foxes, hawks, etc.) increase and reduce the rabbits, which in turn causes predator numbers to drop, preventing rabbits from disappearing entirely. Balancing loops thus create **stability** (or oscillation) by adjusting the system when it strays from a desired state. They are crucial for resilience – keeping systems within healthy bounds. For instance, in a pasture system, if livestock overgraze (grass declines), a balancing response might be that some animals lose weight or die off, reducing grazing pressure and allowing grass to regrow. This is a harsh natural balancing loop. A better balancing loop is rotational grazing: herders intentionally move animals before pastures are bare, allowing recovery.

Why Feedback Matters: Feedback loops explain how small actions can snowball or self-correct. Ignoring feedback can lead to surprises. The Aral Sea disaster, for example, had a reinforcing feedback: less river water led to a shrinking sea, which increased salinity, killing fish and further destroying the local climate and economy – which in turn made it harder to take action, accelerating collapse. Recognizing feedback loops helps us anticipate such chain reactions. Systems thinkers map out feedback loops to see **where to intervene**. If a reinforcing loop is driving undesirable change (e.g., climate warming releasing more greenhouse gases from permafrost, causing more warming), we might try to *break* the loop or introduce a balancing loop (like policies that reduce emissions). Conversely, to promote positive change, we can strengthen reinforcing loops that work in the favor of life systems and their renewal. This is regeneration.

Adaptive Cycles

Natural and social systems often undergo recurring cycles of **growth, collapse, and renewal**. C.S. Holling (1973) and colleagues described the **adaptive cycle** to explain these dynamic patterns in ecosystems and other complex systems. The adaptive cycle has four key phases:

1. **Growth or Exploitation (r-phase):** A period of rapid growth, expansion, and resource accumulation. In an ecosystem, this could be pioneers or opportunists taking advantage of open space or resources (e.g. after a disturbance, fast-growing plants colonize the area). In a social system, this might be a start-up industry in a new market growing quickly. In Central Asian context, the early Soviet era agriculture expansion in new lands could be seen as an exploitation phase – quickly growing cotton production by using abundant water and land.
2. **Conservation (K-phase):** A phase of consolidation, slow growth, and efficiency. The system becomes more complex and rigid as resources are fully used and stored. In a forest, this is a mature, old-growth stage – biomass and nutrients are locked up in long-lived trees, and few new niches are left. The system is stable but **inflexible**. In socio-economic terms, think of a well-established industry or bureaucracy that has optimized itself but is resistant to change. The Aral Sea irrigation system in the mid-20th century reached a K-phase: water was fully allocated to farms, creating a stable but unsustainable status quo.
3. **Collapse or Release (Ω -phase, “omega”):** A rapid breakdown or release of accumulated resources and structures. In ecosystems, this could be a wildfire, drought, or pest outbreak that suddenly destroys biomass and opens up the system. In social systems, it could be an economic crash, conflict, or other crisis that dismantles existing structures. The collapse releases nutrients or capital that had been tied up. The Aral Sea’s collapse in the late 20th century – when the ecosystem and local economy crashed – is an example of a release phase following over-exploitation.
4. **Reorganization (α -phase, “alpha”):** A phase of innovation, reorganization, and renewal after the collapse. Different elements recombine in new ways, and the system may take a new trajectory. In nature, after a fire, the ecosystem doesn’t return exactly as before – new species may dominate, and the cycle begins anew with growth. In social systems, a crisis can lead to reforms, new policies, or technologies (for example, after an economic collapse, a society might reorganize with new institutions or values). This phase is a window of opportunity: because the old structures are gone, **innovation** and **experimentation** can shape the future system.

These four phases (often drawn as a loop $r \rightarrow K \rightarrow \Omega \rightarrow \alpha$ and back to r) make up the adaptive cycle. The cycle highlights that **change is not linear** – systems can be stable for long periods and then suddenly transform. Importantly, adaptive cycles are not necessarily “good” or “bad” – they are natural. Even long-lived systems eventually need renewal (for instance, a forest can accumulate fuel and must experience a fire or it will eventually burn catastrophically). In human terms, being aware of adaptive cycles helps in **building resilience**: preparing for the release phase (like having crisis plans) and guiding the reorganization phase (seizing the chance to improve the system rather than rebuild the exact problems of the past).

Nested Cycles

Adaptive cycles don’t occur in isolation. They are often **nested** within one another across scales. A local pasture might have its own cycle of growth and overgrazing, but it’s nested in a regional climate cycle, economic cycle of livestock markets, and public policy. Holling and others introduced the concept of **panarchy** to describe these interconnected hierarchies of adaptive cycles. In a panarchy, **small, fast cycles** (like annual crop planting and harvest) nest

within **larger, slower cycles** (like national agricultural policy or climate trends). The interactions across scales are crucial: a collapse at a small scale (e.g., one overgrazed field) might be absorbed if larger scales are healthy, whereas a collapse at a large scale (e.g., a regional drought) can overwhelm smaller systems. The term **nested systems** more generally means that systems exist within systems, influencing each other. *No system can be understood by focusing on it at only one scale.* For sustainability students, this means recognizing, for example, that a village's water supply system is connected to a province's water management, which is connected to international river treaties, as well as needs for increased hydropower production. **Cross-scale awareness** is key: local regenerative efforts (like community tree planting) need supportive larger systems (like national policies), and conversely, large-scale initiatives must account for local realities.

Leverage Points

When you want to influence a system – especially a complex one – not all actions are equal. **Leverage points** are specific places in a system where a small shift can produce big changes in system behavior. The term was popularized by Donella Meadows, who identified a spectrum of leverage points from shallow to deep. In simple terms, think of a leverage point as a sensitive “pressure point” in the system: push in the right spot and the whole system can shift.

Examples of Leverage Points:

- Changing a **rule or institution** can be a high leverage action. For example, in Kyrgyzstan, overgrazing of pastures was addressed by creating **Pasture User Unions** and community management committees. Instead of Soviet-style central control or open-access chaos, these local institutions set grazing rules, fees, and schedules. This structural change – essentially changing governance of the pasture system – led to more sustainable use and even restoration of degraded rangelands. A small policy change (establishing local pasture committees) had a large impact on land health and livelihoods by leveraging local knowledge and incentives. *NB: Recently this policy change has come under pressure.*
- Providing **information and education** can be a leverage point if lack of awareness is a bottleneck. For instance, a university campus sustainability team might introduce a real-time energy dashboard for each dorm, making energy use visible. This taps into an information flow leverage point: with feedback, students start competing to conserve energy. Such a change can reduce consumption significantly without changing the physical infrastructure.
- Shifting **goals or mindsets** is the deepest leverage. An example at a societal level is the growing recognition in Central Asia that water is a shared, precious resource rather than a tool of national power. This mindset shift is slowly leading to more collaboration (e.g. Kazakhstan and Kyrgyzstan's cooperation on the Chu and Talas rivers) instead of zero-sum competition. As countries see water as an interconnected system requiring joint management, they change policies to match – a paradigm change that can greatly improve regional water outcomes.

In general, leverage points teach us to look beyond the surface fixes. Sometimes investing in **capacity building or changing incentives** (deep changes) will outperform simply spending

more money on a problem within the existing system. For example, giving a community control over their forest (changing ownership rules) might protect the forest better than hiring more patrollers or writing bigger fines under a centralized system. Meadows's insight was that **we usually focus on the least effective levers** (like parameters) because they're visible and easier, whereas the most effective levers (like changing goals or mindsets) are under our noses but require thinking differently.

Systems Thinking in Action in Central Asia

To ground these concepts, let's look at how systems thinking and regeneration can be applied to real scenarios in Central Asia:

- **The Aral Sea Revival:** The Aral Sea's downfall was a systems failure – ignoring feedback loops and downstream effects. Recently, however, there has been a small but significant regenerative success: the construction of the Kok-Aral Dam on the North Aral Sea. This one intervention (a **leverage point** at the physical infrastructure level) allowed water to be retained in the northern part, leading to a rise in water level and the return of fish and fishing jobs in that area. It's not a full restoration, but it shows that thoughtful systemic intervention (here, separating the North and South basins) can create a **positive feedback loop** of recovery (more water → fish return → local economy improves → more support for restoration). The lesson is to identify critical points where action can reverse a vicious cycle into a virtuous cycle.
- **Community Pasture Management (Kyrgyzstan):** After the 1990s, many pasturelands in Kyrgyzstan were degraded by overgrazing and the breakdown of Soviet kolkhoz management. The solution came by viewing the problem as a **social-ecological system**. Instead of simply banning grazing (a simplistic fix), Kyrgyzstan introduced **community-based pasture management**. Local Pasture User Unions now decide how to rotate herds and maintain grazing reserves. This leverages **local knowledge and feedback** – herders see grass conditions and adjust use – within a new governance structure. The result has been more equitable and sustainable grazing, with signs of pasture regeneration and improved livelihoods. This example highlights **nested systems** too: local communities co-manage resources with support from national law (multi-level governance). It's a practical case of an adaptive cycle – after the collapse of old institutions (Ω -phase), communities reorganized (α -phase) with new rules, leading to a more resilient system.
- **Campus Sustainability Initiatives:** Universities in Central Asia are embracing systems thinking to green their campuses. For example, *Central Asian University* in Tashkent set a goal to cut its carbon emissions 50% by 2035 and reach carbon neutrality by 2050. How? Not by one measure alone, but through a **system of changes**: installing solar panels, renovating buildings for energy efficiency, electrifying the campus vehicle fleet, and promoting behavior changes and green policies. This multifaceted plan recognizes that campus sustainability is an

interconnected system (energy, transport, buildings, culture). By addressing multiple leverage points – technology, infrastructure, and human behavior – the campus can create reinforcing loops (e.g. solar panels save money that can fund further green projects, and seeing visible changes builds a culture of sustainability among students). The campus becomes a microcosm of regeneration: reducing its own footprint while educating future leaders in systems thinking. It also encourages thinking about the other systems that interact and can benefit.

- **Cross-Border Water Governance:** Central Asian countries share river systems (Amu Darya, Syr Darya, Chu, Talas) that are truly **nested systems** – local actions upstream affect downstream ecosystems and communities. An example of systems thinking is the **Chu-Talas Commission** between Kazakhstan and Kyrgyzstan, which co-manages the Chu and Talas rivers. This joint commission recognizes the rivers as a single interconnected system rather than two separate national assets. By sharing data, costs, and benefits, they avoid zero-sum conflict and instead focus on **feedback and balance** – e.g. coordinating reservoir releases so that Kyrgyzstan can generate hydropower without depriving Kazakh farms of irrigation water. The Commission is considered a success in transboundary cooperation. It illustrates how **changing the rules of the game** (from competition to cooperation) and building trust can be a high-leverage intervention for regional sustainability. In a sense, it's an example of a **balancing feedback loop** introduced at the political level: when water is scarce, agreements in the commission help correct imbalances and prevent collapse (drought or conflict), keeping the system within safe bounds.

These cases show that complex problems demand a systems view. Instead of one-off fixes, they involve **rethinking structures, paying attention to feedback, and working across scales** (local to regional). They also show that regeneration is possible: degraded lakes, pastures, campuses, and governance relationships can be transformed. By learning to see the whole system – the interplay of ecological, social, and economic factors – Central Asian students and leaders can identify smarter solutions that build long-term resilience and prosperity for their communities.

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Glossary of Key Terms

- **System:** A set of interconnected parts (people, objects, processes, etc.) that together produce patterns of behavior over time. A system has a purpose (function) and properties that none of its parts have alone. Examples: a university, an ecosystem, a city's transportation network.
- **Feedback Loop:** A circular chain of cause and effect where a change eventually "feeds back" to influence the original change. *Reinforcing (Positive) loops* amplify

changes (leading to growth or collapse dynamics), while *Balancing (Negative) loops* counteract changes to stabilize the system.

- **Adaptive Cycle:** A recurring sequence of **growth, conservation, collapse, and reorganization** observed in complex systems. It highlights how systems can build up structure and then undergo rapid change, followed by renewal. Originally from ecology (Holling 1973), but applied to economies, institutions, etc.
- **Nested Systems (Panarchy):** The idea that systems exist at multiple scales and are embedded within one another. A change in a small subsystem can affect larger systems and vice versa. **Panarchy** is the framework of linked adaptive cycles across scales, illustrating how, for example, local, regional, and global processes interact.
- **Leverage Point:** A strategic place in a system where a small shift can lead to big changes in the whole system's behavior. Leverage points can be shallow (changing numeric targets) or deep (changing system goals or mindsets). Identifying high-leverage interventions is key to effective systemic change.
- **Regeneration:** In sustainability context, regeneration means restoring and **improving** the capacity of systems to support life, rather than just sustaining a degraded status quo. It involves active healing of ecosystems and communities, aiming for **positive outcomes** (net benefits for environment and society) rather than merely reducing negatives.
- **Resilience:** The ability of a system to withstand shocks and disturbances while still maintaining its core functions and structure. A resilient system can absorb perturbations (via balancing feedbacks, diversity, redundancy, etc.) and adapt to change. In regeneration, we seek to build resilience so systems can handle stresses like climate change or economic shifts without collapsing.

Further Reading

For those interested in exploring more, here are some foundational and recent works on systems thinking and regeneration with a brief description:

Meadows, Donella H. *Thinking in Systems: A Primer*. Chelsea Green Publishing, 2008. (A highly accessible introduction to systems concepts, feedback loops, and leverage points by a pioneer of systems thinking)

Holling, C. S. "Resilience and Stability of Ecological Systems." *Annual Review of Ecology and Systematics* 4 (1973): 1–23. (Classic paper introducing the resilience concept and laying groundwork for adaptive cycle theory).

Berkes, Fikret, and Carl Folke, eds. *Linking Social and Ecological Systems: Management Practices and Social Mechanisms for Building Resilience*. Cambridge University Press, 2000. (Early collection on how human and natural systems are interdependent, featuring the idea that humans are part of nature).

Latour, Bruno. *Politics of Nature: How to Bring the Sciences into Democracy*. Harvard University Press, 2009. (Challenges the separation of nature and society, advocating for networks of hybrid collectives in which science and politics co-emerge).

Connolly, William E. *A World of Becoming*. Duke University Press, 2011. (Brings together political theory and complexity science to describe a dynamic, emergent world. Useful for thinking about systems as never fully closed or controlled).

Armitage, Derek, Fikret Berkes, and Nancy Doubleday, eds. *Adaptive Co-Management: Collaboration, Learning, and Multi-Level Governance*. UBC Press, 2007. (Discusses how communities and governments can jointly manage resources adaptively – a key to local governance and resilience).

Fazey, Ioan, Niko Schöpke, Guido Caniglia, et al. “Transforming Knowledge Systems for Life on Earth: Visions of Future Systems and How to Get There.” *Energy Research & Social Science* 70 (2020). (Examines how our systems of knowledge and learning must change to tackle sustainability challenges, emphasizing collaboration and systemic thinking).

Buckton, Sam J., Ioan Fazey, Bill Sharpe, et al. “The Regenerative Lens: A Conceptual Framework for Regenerative Social-Ecological Systems.” *One Earth* 6, no. 7 (2023): 824–842. (A recent paper proposing qualities of regenerative systems – e.g. mutualism, diversity, reflexivity – and reinforcing cycles that “maintain wellbeing”).

Folke, Carl, et al. “Resilience and Sustainable Development: Building Adaptive Capacity in a World of Transformations.” *Ambio* 31, no. 5 (2002): 437–440. (Short article linking resilience, adaptive cycles, and sustainability, co-authored by leading resilience scholars).

Each of these readings can deepen your understanding of systems thinking or provide specific insights into regeneration and sustainability. As you dive deeper, remember to continually relate concepts back to your local context – be it managing a campus initiative, thinking about public policy, or participating in community projects. **Systems thinking is ultimately a practice:** the more you use it to ask questions like “*What are the connections? What feedback is occurring? Where could a small change have a big effect?*”, the more naturally you’ll see the regenerative possibilities for a healthier, more sustainable future in Central Asia and beyond.